



Social and Developmental Psychology

THE RECOGNITION OF THE **SOCIAL ORIENTATION** OF HUMAN psychology and behavior—the orientation of some aspects of human thought, emotion, and behavior to the represented thought, emotion, and behavior of members of social groups—goes back to antiquity. Aristotle characterized the human being as a “social animal” (*Politics*, I, 2, 1253a2), and medieval scholars acknowledged the critical role of social community in the shaping of human psychology and behavior. Indeed in medieval times, individuals were primarily conceived of as members of social communities:

To describe an individual was to give an example of the group of which he was a member, and so to offer a particular description of that group and of the relationships within it.

—(Williams, 1961, p. 91)

Many social theorists from Plato to Émile Durkheim (1858–1917) were **holists** who conceived of social groups as supra-individual entities with emergent properties such as social minds: social forms of mentality not reducible to the mental properties of the individual persons who compose social groups. This notion was challenged by individualist social theorists in the 17th and 18th centuries, notably by Thomas Hobbes (1651/1966), who maintained that social groups are nothing more than collections of individuals and that social thought, emotion, and behavior are nothing more than the aggregate thought, emotion, and behavior of collections of individuals, governed by the pursuit of pleasure and avoidance of pain. In a similar vein, the Scottish economist Adam Smith (1723–1790) famously maintained that the distribution of social goods is a product of the individual pursuit of self-interest (Smith, 1776).

Following the Renaissance and Reformation, the medieval conception of the individual as an inseparable member of social groups was displaced by a conception of the individual as independent of social community, as an autonomous

rational agent whose psychology and behavior are self-determined (Farr, 1996). When Émile Durkheim represented the emergent social mentality of social groups as analogous to the emergent properties of cells (Durkheim, 1902/1982), such vitalist biological accounts were already under assault from reductive physiologists such as Brücke, du Bois-Reymond, and Helmholtz, who argued that the properties of cells are reducible to the physical and chemical properties of the molecules that compose them (du Bois-Reymond, 1842/1927). Individualistic social theorists likewise insisted that the properties of social groups are reducible to the psychological properties of the individuals that compose them.

SOCIAL PSYCHOLOGY

The notion of a distinctive social psychology of human thought, emotion, and behavior developed from the theories of Giambattista Vico and Johann Gottfried Herder, who recognized the possibility of different forms of psychology and behavior associated with different social communities in different cultures and historical periods. Johann Friedrich Herbart, famous for his individual psychology of representations bound by attractive and repulsive forces, proposed the idea of a separate social psychology of opinions and actions governed by social forces (Herbart, 1821).

Wilhelm von Humboldt related differences in human psychology and behavior to different social communities and their associated linguistic modes of expression (von Humboldt, 1836). He characterized the study of the forms of language and custom associated with different social communities as *Völkerpsychologie*, a designation Moritz Lazarus (1824–1903) employed in his attempt to inaugurate a discipline devoted to the study of different social forms of human psychology, culture, and language.

In the late 19th century, Émile Durkheim, the founding father of sociology (who visited Wundt's laboratory in Leipzig in the 1880s), distinguished between social and individual forms of thought, emotion, and behavior, which he characterized as the respective subject matters of social and individual psychology (Durkheim, 1895/1982). Durkheim characterized social forms of thought, emotion, and behavior as those associated with the membership of distinctive social groups, such as the forms of thought, emotion, and behavior characteristic of Catholics as opposed to Protestants, or liberal democrats as opposed to socialists, and appealed to such differences to explain the different rates of suicide among different social groups (Durkheim, 1897). Max Weber (1864–1920), the founder of German sociology, similarly characterized social action as action oriented to the represented actions of members of social groups (Weber, 1922/1978).

Around the same time, Gustave Le Bon (1841–1931) and Gabriel Tarde (1843–1904) developed theories of **crowd psychology** (Le Bon, 1895/1896; Tarde,

1890/1903, 1901). Le Bon and Tarde claimed that the irrational and emotional behavior of individuals in crowds is the product of suggestibility and imitation, echoing turn-of-the-century concerns about the threats posed to civilization by democratic assemblies, trial by jury, and universal suffrage (Nye, 1975; van Ginneken, 1985, 1992). Le Bon and Tarde associated the irrational and emotional behavior of crowds with abnormal behavior, likening the behavior of individuals in crowds to individuals in a hypnotic state: "Society is imitation and imitation is a form of somnambulism" (Tarde, 1890, p. 87). The Harvard psychiatrist Morton Prince institutionalized this early association of social and abnormal psychology. He included papers on social psychology in the *Journal of Abnormal Psychology* (founded in 1906) and changed the name of the journal to the *Journal of Abnormal and Social Psychology* in 1917.

Durkheim and Weber rejected the crowd psychology of Le Bon and Tarde by distinguishing between social thought, emotion, and behavior (oriented to the represented thought, emotion, and behavior of members of social groups) and merely imitated behavior. Durkheim insisted that

Imitation does not always express, indeed never expresses, what is essential and characteristic in the social fact. Doubtless every social fact is imitated and has, as we have just shown, a tendency to become generalized, but this is *because it is social, i.e. obligatory*.

—(1895, p. 59)

Weber claimed that merely imitated actions, such as imitating the manner in which another sets a fishing line, or following another in a crowd, are not instances of social action:

Mere imitation of the action of others . . . will not be considered a case of specifically social action if it is purely reactive. . . . The mere fact that a person is found to employ some apparently useful procedure which he learned from someone else does not, however, constitute, in the present sense, social action.

—(1922/1978, pp. 23–24)

For Weber, action based upon imitation counts as social action only when "the action of others is imitated because it is fashionable or traditional or exemplary" or when it is based upon "a justified expectation on the part of members of a group that a customary rule will be adhered to" (1922/1978, p. 24).

Albert Schäffle (1831–1903), Ludwig Gumplowicz (1838–1909), and Gustav Ratzenhofer (1842–1904) developed the notion of a distinctive social psychology within sociology, and their work was discussed by early American sociologists and social psychologists (Bogardus, 1922; Small, 1905; Small & Vincent, 1894; Ward, 1883). Albion Small (1854–1926) and George Vincent's (1864–1941)

Introduction to the Study of Society (1894) was largely responsible for the American dissemination of the work of European social theorists, including Georg Simmel (1858–1918), perhaps the most social psychological of the early sociologists (Simmel, 1894, 1908).

Early German and American Social Psychology

The social dimensions of human psychology and behavior were also recognized by the founding fathers of psychology in Germany and America. Wundt maintained that certain forms of human psychology and behavior are grounded in social community:

All such products of a general character presuppose as a condition the existence of a mental *community* composed of many individuals.

—(Wundt, 1897/1902, p. 23, original emphasis)

Like Durkheim, Wundt distinguished social from individual or experimental psychology on the grounds that the objects of social as opposed to individual or experimental psychology are grounded in the membership of social groups:

Because of this dependence on the community, in particular the social community, this whole department of psychological investigation is designated as *social psychology*, and distinguished from individual, or as it may be called because of its predominating method, *experimental psychology*.

—(Wundt, 1897/1902, p. 23, original emphasis)

Wundt thought that the experimental study of elemental conscious processes needed to be supplemented by the historical-comparative study of the “mental products” of social communities, such as language, myth, and custom, and spent most of his later years developing this form of psychology in his 10-volume *Völkerpsychologie* (1900–1920).

Wundt’s student Oswald Külpe, the founder of the Würzburg School, also acknowledged that socially engaged psychological states and behavior form the subject matter of a distinctive social psychology.

Social psychology treats of the mental phenomena dependent upon a community of individuals; it is already a special department of study, if not a fully developed science.

—(Külpe, 1895, p. 7)

Few of Wundt’s returning American students showed much interest in the development of *Völkerpsychologie*. Yet many early American scientific psychologists,

including both structuralist psychologists such as Edward B. Titchener and functionalist psychologists such as James R. Angell, followed Wundt in recognizing the distinct identity as well as the value of social psychology, conceived of as a discipline concerned with those psychological states and behaviors that are grounded in the membership of social groups:

Just as the scope of psychology extends beyond man to the animals, so too does it extend from the individual man to groups of men, to societies.

—(Titchener, 1910, p. 28)

Social psychology, in its broadest sense, has to do mainly with the psychological principles involved in those expressions of mental life which take form in social relations, organizations, and practices.

—(Angell, 1908, p. 4)

William James, often represented as the founder of American psychology, also recognized the possibility of a distinctive social psychology of socially oriented psychology and behavior. In a famous section of the *Principles*, James described the various **social selves** that can be attributed to individuals, conceived of as complexes of beliefs, attitudes, emotions, and habits associated with membership in different social groups:

We may practically say that he has as many social selves as there are distinct *groups* of persons about whose opinion he cares. He generally shows a different side of himself to each of these different groups. Many a youth who is demure enough before his parents and teachers, swears and swaggers like a pirate among his “tough” young friends. We do not show ourselves to our children as to our club companions, to our customers as to the laborers we employ, to our own masters and employers as to our intimate friends. From this there results what practically is a division of the man into several selves; and this may be a discordant splitting, as when one is afraid to let one set of his acquaintances know him as he is elsewhere; or it may be a perfectly harmonious division of labor, as where one tender to his children is stern to the soldiers or prisoners under his command.

—(James, 1890, p. 294)

The psychological tension produced in individuals by the social orientation of much of their psychology and behavior to different social groups (such as family, friends, profession, and religion) was a popular topic for early American social psychologists (Cooley, 1902; Faris, 1925; La Piere, 1938).

The first American textbooks in social psychology were *Social Psychology* (1908) by Edward A. Ross (1866–1951) and *Introduction to Social Psychology* (1908) by William McDougall. In *Social Psychology* (and *Social Control*, 1906), Ross argued

that the subtle social influences on human psychology and behavior could be identified and surmounted (or exploited) by a scientific social psychology. McDougall is often represented as having advocated an individualistic biological position in *Introduction to Social Psychology*, but this work was intended as a preliminary to the study of the social orientation of human psychology and behavior, which McDougall considered to be the distinctive subject matter of social psychology, or collective or group psychology.

Although *Introduction to Social Psychology* focused on human instincts, McDougall followed Ross in arguing for the critical importance of the “social environment” in the determination of human psychology and behavior. He maintained that the

very important advance in psychology toward usefulness is due to the increasing recognition that the adult human mind is the product of the moulding influence exerted by the social environment, and of the fact that the strictly individual human mind, with which alone the older introspective and descriptive psychology concerned itself, is an abstraction merely and has no real existence.

—(McDougall, 1908, p. 16)

McDougall's *Introduction to Social Psychology* dealt with the first part of what he considered to be the “fundamental problem of social psychology”:

For social psychology has to show how, given the native propensities and capacities of the individual human mind, all the complex mental life of societies is shaped by them and in turn reacts upon the course of their development and operation in the individual.

—(McDougall, 1908, p. 18)

The second part McDougall dealt with in *The Group Mind* (1920), which represented his attempt to determine “the general principles of collective mental life which are incapable of being deduced from the laws of the mental life of isolated individuals” (McDougall, 1920, pp. 7–8). McDougall's reference to “isolated individuals” was not to individuals who are physically isolated from each other (the contrast class of theorists of crowd behavior), but to individuals “in the absence of the system of relations that render them a society” (1920, p. 9).

Ross was a sociologist and McDougall a psychologist, and in the early decades of the 20th century the social orientation of human psychology and behavior was explored by social psychologists working in both departments of sociology (Bogardus, 1924a, 1924b; Ellwood, 1924, 1925; Faris, 1925; Thomas, 1904; Thomas & Znaniecki, 1918; Young, 1925, 1930, 1931) and psychology (Dunlap, 1925; Kantor, 1922; Katz & Schanck, 1938; McDougall, 1920; Wallis, 1925, 1935).

These social psychologists all maintained that socially oriented forms of human psychology and behavior constitute the distinctive subject matter of **social** (or group or collective) **psychology**. They distinguished socially oriented psychology and behavior from individual psychology and behavior, the product of reasons or causes operating independently of social orientation, such as self-interest or instinct, and held that such individual psychology and behavior constitute the subject matter of **individual psychology**. Thus Knight Dunlap, for example, maintained that

One of the outstanding characteristics of the human individual is his associating in groups of various kinds. These groups are not mere collections of people, but possess psychological characteristics binding the individuals together or organizing them in complicated ways.

Human groups are the manifestation of the social nature of man. . . . The psychological study of man is therefore not complete until we have investigated his groupings, and analyzed the mental factors involved therein. This study is *social psychology*, or *group psychology*.

—(Dunlap, 1925, p. 11)

These social psychologists held that human psychology and behavior is socially oriented to a wide range of social groups, from simple friendship dyads to whole societies, including families, clubs, professions, religious groups, unions, political parties, states, and nations (Ellwood, 1925; McDougall, 1920).

A frequent focus of early American social psychology was the study of social attitudes, conceived of as attitudes associated with membership of social groups such as political or religious groups or particular professions or trades, which Emory S. Bogardus (1882–1973) characterized as **occupational attitudes**:

Each occupation has its characteristic attitudes, which, taken in the large, may be referred to here as the occupational attitude. . . . each occupation is characterized by social attitudes and values peculiar to itself.

—(Bogardus, 1924a, p. 172)

Such social attitudes were frequently appealed to in the explanation of prejudice and stereotypes:

The individual manifestation of race prejudice cannot be understood apart from a consideration of group attitudes. In collecting data it often happens that the investigator finds cases of the acquisition of a prejudice with astonishing suddenness and as the result of a single experience. But this could only happen in a milieu where there was a pre-existing group attitude. One who has no negro prejudice can acquire

it from a single encounter but it is the group attitude that makes it possible for him to acquire it.

—(Faris, 1925, p. 405)

Individualistic Social Psychology

In the early decades of the 20th century, American social psychologists working in departments of psychology and sociology conceived of social psychology as the study of those aspects of human psychology and behavior that are oriented to the represented psychology and behavior of members of social groups, a conception shared by European psychologists (Bartlett, 1932; Piaget, 1932) and sociologists such as Durkheim, Weber, and Simmel. However, this conception was gradually abandoned by American social psychologists as the 20th century developed, when Floyd Allport (1890–1971), sometimes characterized as the founder of American scientific or experimental social psychology (Katz, 1991), challenged it.

Floyd Allport studied with Hugo Münsterberg, who suggested that Allport write his dissertation on social facilitation, conceived of as interpersonal influences on human psychology and behavior. Allport's work on social facilitation was based upon the comparative experimental study of human performance on a variety of perceptual, motor, and cognitive tasks, in the presence and absence of other persons. Münsterberg had introduced Allport to the work of Walther Moede (1888–1958), who called his own form of experimental social psychology experimental crowd psychology (Moede, 1914, 1920), and educational psychologists such as Ernst Meumann, since much of the early work on social facilitation was based upon the performance of schoolchildren working alone or together (F. Allport, 1974). In his own experimental studies, Allport found that performance on many perceptual and motor tasks improves in the presence of others, while performance on some cognitive tasks deteriorates (F. Allport, 1920). Allport accepted a position at the University of North Carolina at Chapel Hill in 1922, but later moved to Syracuse University, where he spent the majority of his academic career (from 1924 to 1956).

Allport did not directly challenge the original conception of the social orientation of human psychology and behavior, but launched a critical attack on the notion of the social mind frequently associated with it. The notion of a social or group mind figured in the writings of many early social psychologists, including Wundt and McDougall, who titled his second work on social psychology *The Group Mind* (McDougall, 1920). Allport attacked this notion with great vigor and characterized theoretical commitment to the existence of a social or group mind as the **group fallacy**. He claimed that this fallacy derived from the misguided attempt to explain “social phenomena in terms of the group as a whole, whereas the true explanation is to be found only in its component parts, the

individuals" (1924b, p. 60). He also claimed that the group fallacy was responsible for the mistaken belief that "it is possible to have a 'group psychology' as distinct from the psychology of individuals" (1924b, p. 62). In *Social Psychology* Allport famously claimed that

There is no psychology of groups that is not essentially and entirely a psychology of individuals. Social psychology must not be placed in contradistinction to the psychology of the individual; it is part of the psychology of the individual, whose behavior it studies in relation to that sector of his environment comprised by his fellows.

—(1924a, p. 4)

He consequently redefined the subject matter of social psychology, now conceived of as a branch of individual psychology, as **interpersonal psychological states and behavior**—that is, as psychological states and behavior relating to other persons:

Social psychology is the science which studies the behavior of the individual insofar as his behavior stimulates other individuals, or is itself a reaction to their behavior; and which describes the consciousness of the individuals insofar as it is a consciousness of social objects and social reactions.

—(F. Allport, 1924a, p. 12)

In contrast to the earlier conception of social-psychological states and behavior (in which social and individual behavior were distinguished in terms of their orientation to or independence from the represented behavior of members of social groups), Allport distinguished social and individual behavior in terms of whether or not it is directed toward other persons:

Social behavior comprises the stimulations and reactions arising between an individual and the *social* portion of his environment; that is, between the individual and his fellows. Examples of such behavior would be the reaction to language, gestures, and other movements of our fellow men, in contrast with our reactions towards non-social objects, such as plants, minerals, tools, and inclement weather.

—(Allport, 1924a, p. 3)

The contrast may be illustrated by noting that most early American social psychologists maintained that social behavior need not be directed toward other persons, such as the social behavior of the solitary genuflector or golfer (La Piere, 1938) and can be directed toward nonpersons, such as the social behavior of individuals who avoid walking under ladders or paint landscapes rather than portraits (Thomas & Znaniecki, 1918).

Allport was an avowed behaviorist, but his rejection of the social mind was based more upon his empiricist commitment to the principle of explanatory reduction

than upon any behaviorist rejection of cognition or consciousness. Allport maintained that the social psychological is reducible to the individual psychological in precisely the same fashion as the psychological is reducible to the physiological and the physiological to the electrochemical: "In the hierarchy of sciences the field of description of one science becomes the field of explanation for the science immediately above it" (1924b, p. 69). This was a reductive commitment Allport shared with empiricist philosophers such as Hobbes and reductive physiologists such as von Brücke, du Bois-Reymond, and Helmholtz, rather than with behaviorists such as Watson, who in fact insisted on the autonomy of behaviorist explanation with respect to physiology and electrochemistry (Watson, 1919).

Allport's own commitment to behaviorism was lukewarm. He maintained that it was a "serious mistake" to believe that "consciousness has no place in a science of behavior" and suggested that "consciousness accompanying reactions which are not readily observable . . . furnishes us with valuable evidence of these reactions, and thus aids in our selection of explanatory principles" (1924b, p. 3). Although he paid lip service to Watson's famous denial that cognitive states ever function as inner causes (1924a, p. 2), he regularly appealed to cognitive "impressions of universality" and pathological "projections" of beliefs and emotions in the causal explanation of crowd behavior, social behavior, and "conformity behavior" (1924a, 1934). Like many early social psychologists, including other avowed behaviorists such as the psychologist Knight Dunlap and the sociologist Emory Bogardus, Allport maintained that a central focus of social psychology should be the study of social attitudes, albeit reconceived as merely "common attitudes" directed toward other persons (1924a, p. 6).

Allport followed those behaviorists who questioned the scope of explanations of human behavior in terms of inherited instincts (Bernard, 1921; Dunlap, 1919; Kuo, 1921; Watson, 1924), notably the multiplicity of human instincts postulated by William McDougall in his *Introduction to Social Psychology* (1908). However, like most social psychologists, he also recognized that instincts play a role in the explanation of behavior, albeit redescribed as "drives" (Dunlap, 1925) or "prepotent reflexes" (Allport, 1924a).

Although Allport's critique of some of the more extreme claims about the social or group mind advanced by theorists such as Wallis (1925, 1935) and McDougall (1920) was warranted, their own advocacy of a distinctive social psychology directed to the study of socially oriented psychology and behavior was independent of their commitment to the notion of an emergent social or group mind. Other social psychologists, such as Dunlap (1925), Kantor (1922), La Pièrre (1938), and Ross (1908), advocated a distinctive social psychology of socially oriented psychology and behavior while repudiating the notion of a social or group mind. However, many later social psychologists followed Allport in rejecting the notion of a distinctive social psychology along with the notion of an emergent social or group mind. With some justification McDougall later regretted that he had made a "tactical error" in talking about the group mind.

Individualism and Social Psychology There were other reasons why the notion of a distinctive social psychology of socially oriented psychology and behavior was abandoned. Allport represented the social orientation of thought, emotion, and behavior as a threat to liberal principles of rational self-determination or the “sovereignty of the individual,” which had been promoted in the 19th century by John Stuart Mill in Britain and Josiah Warren (1798–1894) in America. Allport likened socially oriented thought, emotion, and behavior to the impetuous and irrational behavior of crowds (as had Le Bon and Tarde). In “The J-Curve Hypothesis of Conforming Behavior” (1934), he noted that the statistical distribution of “conforming” behavior, such as Episcopalians bowing in silent prayer before church service and motorists stopping before a red light, tends to be highly asymmetrical, in contrast to the normal symmetrical distribution of behavior expressive of random personality differences. Allport treated the J-shaped distribution of “conforming” behavior as psychologically as well as statistically abnormal, representing a pathological form of “crowd-like subservience” (1934, p. 396).

In *Institutional Psychology* (1933), Allport railed against socially oriented thought, emotion, and behavior, which he believed posed a threat to society as well as the autonomy of individuals. In a similar vein, his brother Gordon Allport associated socially oriented thought, emotion, and behavior with the ideology of totalitarian states, which he claimed to be a product of commitment to the notion of a supra-individual group mind:

According to Hegel’s idealistic philosophy there is only one Mind. . . . It works itself out in the course of history. Individual men are but its agents. Its principal focus is in the state, which is therefore the chief agent of divine life on earth. Each state has, in fact it *is*, a group mind. It has its own laws of growth and development (the dialectic) and while it makes much use of individuals, it is by no means reducible to their transitory mental life. Marx, as well as Hitler, was among the sinister spiritual children of Hegel. Like him, they equated personal freedom with obedience to the group, morality with discipline, personal growth with the prosperity of the party, class, or state. *Du bist nichts: dein Volk ist alles* was the Nazi rallying cry.

We can trace Hegel’s psychological influence in several directions. As we have said, it underlay Karl Marx’s exaltation of social class as a superindividual entity. In Britain, Bosanquet and Green were among the political followers who, following Hegel, viewed the state as an organic mind transcending the component minds of individuals, and demanding “sober daily loyalty.” It is hardly necessary to point out that psychological apologists for racism and nationalism . . . tend no less than Hegel to apotheosize the group mind, as represented by the state, race, folk, or *Kultur*.

—(1954, pp. 34–35)

Yet this critical association was unfairly directed to advocates of a distinctive social or group psychology such as Wundt and McDougall. The Nazis burnt copies of Wundt's *Völkerpsychologie* (1900–1920) precisely because Nazi apologists such as von Eickstedt (1933) insisted that race should be defined by blood rather than by social community, as Wundt had maintained (Brock, 1992). Moreover, the historical disciples of Wundt, notably the social anthropologist Franz Boas and his followers, were among the staunchest critics of the racist policies of Nazi Germany (Boas, 1934/1945).

McDougall repudiated the association with Hegel's philosophy and totalitarianism and tried to defend a form of **communitarian individualism**, in which human individuality is attained “in and through the community” (1920, p. 17). This he opposed to the form of **autonomy individualism** based upon rational self-determination, associated with utilitarianism and laissez-faire economics, which he claimed promoted an ideal of individual liberty that “was proving destructive of the real liberty of the vast majority” (1920, p. 17). Yet the association stuck, with the consequence that socially oriented forms of human psychology and behavior came to be represented in the later social-psychological literature as individually and socially subversive forms of “other-directed” behavior (Krech, Crutchfield, & Ballachey, 1962, after Riesman, 1950), “group-think” (Janis, 1968), “conformity” (Kiesler & Kiesler, 1969), and “obedience” (Milgram, 1963, 1974).

Of course, the idea that socially oriented thought, emotion, and behavior posed a threat to human individuality and society was no reason for excluding it as the subject matter of a distinctive social psychology. Ross (1908) had maintained that the goal of a distinctive social psychology was precisely to identify such social influences on human psychology and behavior so that individuals could surmount them. Social psychologists such as Daniel Katz (1903–1998) and Richard Schanck (1902–) noted that socially oriented thought and behavior need not be involuntary or regimented, but may be freely embraced by members of a social group: “The uniform activities of a group of people may represent their fundamental wishes very well” (Katz & Schanck, 1938, p. 9).

Experimental Social Psychology The individualistic and experimental approach to social psychology that Floyd Allport promoted was already well represented by the 1930s in Gardner Murphy (1895–1979) and Lois B. Murphy's (1902–2003) book-length survey *Experimental Social Psychology* (Murphy & Murphy, 1931; Murphy, Murphy, & Newcomb, 1937) and John F. Dashiell's (1888–1975) chapter on experimental social psychology in the 1935 *Handbook of Social Psychology* (Murchison, 1935). Within this evolving experimental tradition, Norman Triplett's (1861–1910) study of pacemaking and competition among cyclists and children playing games (Triplett, 1898) came to be treated as the first experiment in social psychology (Haines & Vaughan, 1979), and the

experimental method came to be seen as providing the best hope and promise of a genuinely scientific social psychology:

From the experiments of Triplett to the appearance of Allport's studies it was becoming steadily clearer that social psychology could advance by the experimental method.

—(Murphy, Murphy, & Newcomb, 1937, p. 13)

An essential feature of this individualistic and experimental approach to social psychology was the denial of any real distinction between social and individual psychology. The assumption that all social behavior could be accommodated by the explanatory resources of individual psychology was clearly if somewhat quaintly expressed by Dashiell in his chapter on experimental social psychology in the 1935 *Handbook of Social Psychology*:

Particularly it is to be borne in mind that in this objective stimulus-response relationship to his fellows we have to deal with no radically new concepts, no principles essentially different to those applying to non-social situations.

—(1935, p. 1097)

This individual and experimental form of social psychology was grounded more in the crowd psychology of Le Bon, Tarde, and Moede than the socially oriented psychology of Wundt, MacDougall, and Dunlap (as Allport freely acknowledged). For Le Bon, Tarde, and Moede, the “social” behavior of individuals in crowds was contrasted with the behavior of individuals physically isolated from each other. Thus Le Bon maintained that individuals in a crowd

feel, think and act in a manner quite different from that in which each individual of them would feel, think and act were he in a state of isolation.

—(1895, p. 2)

For Wundt, MacDougall, and Dunlap, socially oriented behavior was contrasted with individual behavior, such as instinctual or rational behavior not oriented to the represented psychology and behavior of members of social groups, irrespective of the physical proximity of other persons. Thus Dunlap insisted that socially oriented thought and behavior can be engaged in the *absence* of other persons, including members of one's own social group:

“Social consciousness” . . . is the consciousness (in the individual, of course) of others in *the group*. . . . The consciousness of others may be perceptual, or it may be ideational. One may be conscious of one's membership in the Lutheran Church, or

in the group of atheists, when physically alone; and this group consciousness *may* be as important and as vivid under such circumstances as when one is physically surrounded by members of the group.

—(1925, p. 19)

Yet it was the conception of social groups as crowds that shaped the form of experimental social psychology that Allport and later generations of social psychologists embraced. Allport treated experimental “social” groups as “small crowds” (Allport, 1924a, p. 260), as aggregates of individuals assembled for some experimental task. He distinguished between **co-acting** and **face-to-face** experimental groups, without any reference to the social orientation or affiliation of the members of experimental groups, who were normally strangers to each other. Co-acting groups were defined as groups in which “the individuals are primarily occupied with some stimulus rather than one another. The social stimuli in operation [from other persons] are therefore merely *contributory*” (1924a, p. 260). Face-to-face (or “interacting”) groups were defined as groups in which “the individuals react mainly or entirely to one another” and so “the social stimulations in effect are of a *direct* order” (1924a, p. 261).

Allport’s equation of social and crowd behavior was extended to include the behavior of dispersed populations, which Gabriel Tarde (1901) had called **publics** (King, 1990). Social attitude research came to be replaced by **public opinion** research, which comprised surveys of the common attitudes or opinions of physically dispersed aggregations of individuals, independently of their social orientation or affiliation. This was stimulated in large part by the development of instruments for the measurement of individual attitudes (Likert, 1932; Thurstone, 1931; Thurstone & Chave, 1929).

Nevertheless, the original conception of the social orientation of human psychology and behavior was not abandoned overnight. The 1935 *Handbook of Social Psychology* contained a fairly eclectic set of approaches. This work included Dashiehl’s chapter on experimental social psychology, but it also included chapters on social attitudes, the comparative psychology of the negro, the white man, the red man, and the yellow man, and the social psychology of primates—not to mention the social psychology of fish and flowers! Moreover, the social orientation of attitudes and behavior continued to be explored from the 1930s to the 1950s through a variety of methods, including experimental methods. Representative studies included Solomon Asch’s experimental studies of conformity (1951; Asch, Block, & Hertzman, 1938), Muzafer Sherif’s studies of the formation of social norms (1935, 1936), Theodore Newcomb’s longitudinal study of attitude change at Bennington College (Newcomb, 1943), and Leon Festinger, H. W. Reiken, and Stanley Schachter’s study of millennium cults (Festinger, Reiken, & Schachter, 1956).

Social Psychology in the Postwar Period

The original conception of the social orientation of human psychology and behavior underwent a brief renaissance in the years immediately following the Second World War, notably through the work of Solomon Asch (1907–1996) and Muzafer Sherif (1906–1988). This was largely a product of the interdisciplinary links forged between psychologists and sociologists, psychiatrists, and anthropologists during the war. Social psychologists worked with their social science colleagues in the Army Information and Education Division, the Office of Strategic Services, and the National Research Council. They contributed to the U.S. Strategic Bombing Survey (1946), the study of morale and propaganda (G. Watson, 1942), and the investigation of the attitudes and adjustment of combat troops (Stouffer, Lumsdaine, et al., 1949; Stouffer, Suchman, et al., 1949).

These collaborative efforts generated considerable optimism about the possibility of developing social psychology as a genuinely interdisciplinary science. New research facilities were created, such as the Survey Research Center in Washington, and new interdisciplinary programs were set up, such as the Department of Social Relations at Harvard and the doctoral program in social psychology at the University of Michigan. Wartime work on communication and attitude change (Hovland, Lumsdaine, & Sheffield, 1949) was continued at Yale through the Communication and Attitude Change Program.

Kurt Lewin set up the first doctoral program in group psychology at MIT in 1946, where he initiated a creative experimental program focused on group processes and socially relevant “action research” (Lewin, 1948, 1951). Lewin, who famously maintained “there is nothing so practical as a good theory,” was also a political activist. He was instrumental in the founding of the Society for the Psychological Study of Social Issues (SPSSI, now Division 9 of the APA) and worked vigorously for the Commission of Community Interrelations (which he also helped to establish) in New York City. Faculty and students in the MIT program included Leon Festinger, Harold H. Kelley, John Thibaut, Dorwin Cartwright, and Stanley Schachter, all destined to play a significant role in the development of postwar social psychology. When Lewin died in 1947, the program moved to the University of Michigan, where Theodore M. Newcomb headed it.

Postwar texts in social psychology, such as Theodore Newcomb and Eugene L. Hartley's *Readings in Social Psychology* (1947) and David Krech and Richard S. Crutchfield's *Theory and Problems of Social Psychology* (1948), championed an interdisciplinary approach and bemoaned the divergence between “psychological” and “sociological” social psychology that had developed in the years before the war (Newcomb, 1951). The Krech and Crutchfield text, like the Asch (1952) and Sherif (1948) texts, paid homage to the general principles of Gestalt psychology, as did much of the early work of Kurt Lewin. New theoretical concepts such as Herbert

H. Hyman's (1918–1985) notion of social **reference groups** (1942), to which attitudes and behavior are socially oriented, brought hope of a genuine integration of divergent disciplinary perspectives:

Although this theory is still in the initial stages of development, because of the problems it formulates it promises to be of central importance to social psychology. In particular it is important to those social scientists who desire to interpret the development of attitudes, to predict their expression under different social conditions, to understand the social basis of their stability or resistance to change, or to devise means of increasing or overcoming this resistance. . . . Through . . . research and conceptual development . . . we may expect great advances in our understanding of the social basis of attitudes.

—(Kelley, 1952)

However, the postwar interdisciplinary enthusiasm was short-lived. The scramble for research funds by psychologists and sociologists encouraged as much competition as cooperation. Psychologists continued to dominate the institutional academic delivery of social psychology, including the journals and textbooks, as they had done prior to the war. Sociologists naturally resented this, and many of the interdisciplinary programs created after the war fractured along disciplinary lines (such the programs at Michigan and Harvard). Beyond the interdisciplinary rhetoric, graduate students had to specialize in psychology or sociology (or anthropology or psychiatry) and prepare themselves for an institutional academic world still rigidly divided along traditional disciplinary lines (Collier, Minton, & Reynolds, 1991). Most chose to specialize in psychology, and even within sociology, “psychological” forms of social psychology came to dominate (Burgess, 1977; Liska, 1977). While early sociological social psychologists such as Baldwin, Cooley, and Mead had followed James in recognizing the social dimensions of the self (Baldwin, 1897; Cooley, 1902; Mead, 1934), in the postwar period sociological social psychologists such as Harold Blumer (1900–1987) focused primarily on interpersonal interaction (Blumer, 1969, 1984), developing what became known as the “symbolic interactionist” tradition in sociological social psychology.

Moreover, even the most enthusiastic advocates of interdisciplinary integration, such as Krech and Crutchfield (1948), maintained the Allport line that social psychology is just a branch of individual psychology. The explosion of experimental studies of “small group” processes in the 1950s and early 1960s, largely inspired by Lewin's program of research on “group processes” (Cartwright & Zander, 1953), was followed by a precipitous decline in the late 1960s and early 1970s (McGrath, 1978; Steiner, 1974). Social psychologists quickly lost interest in social reference groups (Singer, 1988), and many of Lewin's former associates and colleagues pursued their own individualistic cognitive programs of research

(Patnoe, 1988). Leon Festinger, one of Lewin's former students at the University of Iowa and later his colleague at MIT, abandoned his earlier interest in social groups and developed his influential theory of "cognitive dissonance" (Festinger, 1957). By the late 1960s most social psychologists had come to endorse Gordon Allport's oft-quoted interpersonal definition of the subject matter of social psychology, in terms of the relation of thought, emotion, and behavior to other persons:

With few exceptions, social psychologists attempt to understand and explain how the thought, feeling, and behavior of individuals are influenced by the actual, imagined, or implied presence of other human beings.

—(G. Allport, 1954, p. 5)

The dominant research programs of the postwar decades were individualistic and cognitive in orientation, such as those developed from cognitive consistency theory (Abelson & Rosenberg, 1958), exchange theory (Thibaut & Kelley, 1959), attribution theory (Bem, 1967), interpersonal attraction (Kelley, 1950), and person perception (Heider, 1958). The *Journal of Abnormal and Social Psychology* abandoned its link with social psychology in 1965, and the *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology* was instituted as the premier journal in social psychology. The *Journal of Experimental Social Psychology* was also founded in 1965.

Although research continued on "social" groups, it focused almost exclusively on the reaction of individuals in experimental groups to manipulated independent variables. Subjects in experimental groups in social psychology were randomly assigned to different treatment conditions. In consequence, very few studies were able to explore the social orientation of human psychology and behavior, since subjects were rarely selected according to their social group orientation or affiliation. Thus McGrath's 1978 review of the "small-group" experimental literature could exhaustively classify the experimental research surveyed under Allport's categories of "co-acting" and "interacting" ("face-to-face") groups (McGrath, 1978).

Although prewar research had employed a variety of methodologies, postwar research became dominated by experimentation, which came to be perceived as the most (or only) reliable means of evaluating causal explanations in social psychology. Christie (1965) contrasted the 30 percent of experimental studies reported in the *Journal of Abnormal and Social Psychology* in 1948 with the 83 percent reported in 1958. Higbee and Wells (1972) compared articles published in the 1969 *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology* with Christie's (1965) study of the *Journal of Abnormal and Social Psychology*, and noted that 87 percent of the *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology* studies employed experimental manipulation. The later study by Higbee, Millard, and Folkman (1982) confirmed that the trend continued throughout the 1970s.

According to Winston (1990), the common definition of experimentation in psychology in terms of the manipulation of independent variables (while holding

other variables constant, and observing the effects upon dependent variables) was first introduced by Edwin G. Boring in *The Physical Dimensions of Consciousness* (1933, pp. 9–10) and popularized in psychology through Robert Woodworth's *Experimental Psychology* (1938). Woodworth also promoted the notion that experimentation is the best, if not the only means of identifying causes, by distinguishing experimentation from other comparative and correlational methods. The use of this definition of experimentation (in terms of the manipulation of independent variables) in psychology texts increased dramatically from the 1930s to the 1970s, from around 5 percent in the 1930s to around 95 percent in the 1970s (Winston & Blais, 1996). More remarkably, the use of this definition of experimentation increased earlier and more dramatically in social psychology than in general experimental psychology (Danziger & Dzinas, 1997).

In the early postwar years, social psychologists accepted that social-group orientation could be explored experimentally, since they allowed that social-group orientation could be treated as an independent variable. For example, A. L. Edwards (1954) and Leon Festinger (1953) treated the preselection of subjects according to political party and religious affiliation as the experimental manipulation of variables, as in Edwards's (1941) study of political orientation and recognition and Festinger's (1947) study of "group-belongingness" and voting behavior. The first and second editions of *Research Methods in Social Relations* allowed that from a "logical point of view" the manipulation of variables is not strictly necessary for experimental inquiry (Jahoda, Deutsch, & Cook, 1951, p. 59) and that "equality" of experimental treatment groups could be attained via methods other than randomization, such as subject matching or frequency-distribution control (Selltiz, Jahoda, Deutsch, & Cook, 1959, pp. 77–80).

However, the social-psychological definition of experimentation became increasingly restrictive as the postwar decades progressed. By the third and fourth editions of *Research Methods in Social Relations*, "true experiments" were defined as those in which potential confounding variables are excluded via randomization (Selltiz, Wrightsman, & Cook, 1976), and "subject" or "organismic" variables, including social variables such as political- or religious-group affiliation, were treated as confounding variables (Kidder, 1981, p. 19). Crano and Brewer's *Principles of Research in Social Psychology* (1973, p. 33) defined "true experiments" as manipulations involving the random assignment of subjects to "treatment" groups. This restrictive conception of the experiment was enshrined in the later editions of the *Handbook of Social Psychology*. The random assignment of subjects to experimental conditions was originally seen as a "major advantage" of experimentation (Aronson & Carlsmith, 1968, p. 7), but the later handbooks affirmed that "the essence of an experiment is the random assignment of participants to experimental conditions" (Aronson, Wilson & Brewer, 1998, p. 112). Recent studies of research trends in social psychology from the 1960s to the 1990s have documented the increasing dominance of "true experiments" employing the random assignment of subjects to

experimental treatment conditions (Reis & Stiller, 1992; Sherman et al., 1999; West, Newsom, & Fenaughty, 1992), which effectively precluded the experimental study of the social orientation of human psychology and behavior, since such social variables were treated as confounding variables (Greenwood, 2004).

The Crisis in Social Psychology Not everyone was happy with the way social psychology developed in the postwar decades. Some lamented the abandonment of the integrative visions of the 1950s and expressed concern about “the continuing and growing fragmentation of the discipline” (Katz, 1967, p. 341). Others complained about the increasingly asocial nature of the discipline (Sherif, 1977; Tajfel, 1972). However, the specifically social focus of these critical voices was almost obliterated by the cacophony of metatheoretical, methodological, and moral critiques that constituted the 1970s **crisis in social psychology** (Elms, 1975).

Over and above complaints about the impoverished and fragmented nature of social-psychological theory, there were serious doubts raised about the empirical progress of the discipline, despite the plethora of experimental studies. Gordon Allport (1968, p. 3) expressed concern over the “slender achievements” of social psychology, and Muzafer Sherif (1977, pp. 368–389) complained that very few “golden kernels” could be extracted from the experimental “chaff” of the preceding decades. More radically, critics such as Kenneth Gergen and Harry C. Triandis complained about the culturally and historically bounded nature of experimental findings in social psychology (Gergen 1973; Triandis, 1976). They maintained that such findings were restricted to temporary phases of American culture and not generalizable beyond them. For example, studies of competition and conflict were doubtfully generalizable beyond the individualistic and capitalist culture of America (Plon, 1974), or conformity studies in the Asch paradigm beyond the McCarthy era in the United States (Gergen, 1973).

There were doubts raised about the social relevance of much research (Ring, 1967) and moral and methodological concerns expressed about the use of deception experiments (Kelman, 1967). Many of these critiques focused upon Stanley Milgram’s controversial experimental studies of “destructive obedience” (Milgram, 1963), in which “teachers” inflicted potentially dangerous electric shocks on “learners” (Baumrind, 1964). However, perhaps the most common complaint focused on the “artificiality” of laboratory experiments in social psychology (Babbie, 1975; Harré & Secord, 1972). Many critics questioned the generalizability and “real-world” relevance of isolative laboratory studies:

The greatest weakness of laboratory experiments lies in their artificiality. Social processes observed to occur within a laboratory setting might not necessarily occur within more natural settings.

—(Babbie, 1975, p. 254)

Concerns were also expressed about the various **interaction effects** that appeared to plague experimentation in social psychology (Miller, 1972). These interaction effects included contaminating or confounding variables such as “experimenter expectancy effect” (Rosenthal, 1966), “demand characteristics” (Orne, 1962), and “evaluation apprehension” (Rosenberg, 1969). Further doubts were raised about the generalizability of findings based upon experimental populations of volunteers (Rosenthal & Rosnow, 1969)—and largely (psychology) student volunteers to boot (Higbee, Millard, & Folkman, 1982; Higbee & Wells, 1972). These complaints led some to call for alternatives to deceptive laboratory experiments, such as field experiments (Silverman, 1977) or role-playing experiments (Kelman, 1967).

However, little changed as a result of the crisis. Mainstream social psychologists renewed their allegiance to the experimental tradition and maintained that an increased commitment to methodological and statistical rigor would resolve most of the problems (Suls & Gastorf, 1980; Suls & Rosnow, 1988). More radical critics, unsatisfied by this approach, became associated with the postmodernist **social constructionist** movement in social psychology (Gergen, 1985), according to which the adoption of scientific theories is a matter of social rhetoric and negotiation rather than a product of empirical evaluation. However, the social constructionist denial of the objective empirical evaluation of scientific theories (in any domain, including physics and biology as well as social psychology) limited the appeal of this position for the majority of practicing social psychologists.

A lot of ink was needlessly spilt on the question of the generality of findings in social psychology, since it is a question that can be resolved only by empirical research on the cultural and historical scope of actual social-psychological explanations. Much of the “artificiality of experiments” debate focused on technical, philosophical, and moral issues, but largely ignored the very real problems of experimental attempts to isolate aspects of relational social-psychological phenomena, such as the judgments of trial jurors, or to study the social orientation of attitudes when “true experiments” mandated the random assignment of subjects to experimental groups. Sherman et al.’s (1999) study of research methods represented in *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology* and *Personality and Social Psychology Bulletin* between 1976 and 1996 recorded the continuing dominance of experimentation over all other methods of research.

Social Cognition The crisis was effectively resolved by the adoption of the *social-cognition* paradigm in the late 1970s and 1980s, propelled by the dramatic success of the cognitive revolution in psychology. Many agreed that the scientific promise of social psychology could be fulfilled by “getting inside the head” (Taylor & Fiske, 1981) to experimentally explore social forms of cognition. The social-cognition paradigm appeared to satisfy both those committed to an experimental psychology and those who wished to have a more cognitive and “social” social psychology.

Social cognition was the dominant topic of conferences in the late 1970s, and of edited collections in the early 1980s. Susan Fiske and Shelley Taylor's definitive text *Social Cognition* came out in 1982. The journal *Social Cognition* was instituted in the early 1980s, along with the "Attitudes and Social Cognition" section of the *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*. Markus and Zajonc (1985) claimed that social psychology and cognitive psychology are "nearly synonymous" and reaffirmed that social psychology is just a branch of individual psychology. Jones (1985) critically dismissed "crisis" talk as not merely overstated, but as damaging and downright disloyal to the scientific institution of social psychology. McGuire (1985) reaffirmed the commitment of mainstream social psychology to the theoretical and methodological paradigm initiated with Floyd Allport's (1924a) individual and experimental reorientation of social psychology.

Yet the 1980s conception of social cognition was no more social than Floyd Allport's (1924a) conception of "social behavior." **Social cognition** was conceived of and defined in terms of cognitive states and processes directed toward other persons and social groups (rather than socially oriented to the represented psychology and behavior of members of social groups):

The study of social cognition concerns how people make sense of other people and themselves.

—(Fiske & Taylor, 1991, p. 17)

It was presumed that the same individual modes of information processing that underlie our perception and cognition of nonsocial objects such as tables, trees, and tarantulas also underlie our perception and cognition of social objects such as people and social groups:

As one reviews research on social cognition, the analogy between the perception of things and the perception of people becomes increasingly clear. The argument is made repeatedly: the principles that describe how people think in general also describe how people think about people.

—(Fiske & Taylor, 1991, p. 5)

This was precisely the individualistic assumption that underpinned Floyd Allport's (1924a) and John P. Dashiell's (1935) conception of social psychology.

However, in the last few decades there appears to have been a revival of interest in the social (and cultural) orientation of human psychology and behavior, as evidenced by a spate of books with titles such as *Socially Shared Cognition* (Resnick, Levine, & Teasley, 1991), *What's Social About Social Cognition?* (Nye & Brower, 1996), and *Group Beliefs* (Bar-Tel, 1990). Considerable interest has been expressed in the European work of Serge Moscovici and his colleagues on "social representations" (Farr & Moscovici, 1984; Moscovici, 1961) and of Henri Tajfel and J. C. Turner on

“social identity” theory (Tajfel, 1981; Tajfel & Turner, 1986; Turner, 1987). Significantly, some of the proponents of the new discipline of “cultural psychology” have explicitly represented themselves as reconstituting the original form of social psychology developed by Durkheim, Wundt, and McDougall (Cole, 1996).

DEVELOPMENTAL PSYCHOLOGY

Speculation about the early “ages of man” goes back to antiquity. Ancient and medieval theorists generally treated children as young adults and believed that their basic cognitive, moral, and motivational capacities were fully developed by around age 5. They held that children differed from adults primarily in terms of their limited physique and knowledge (Aries, 1962), but were capable of gainful employment, sex, and marriage (Rush, 1980).

Empirically grounded theories of childhood were a product of the Enlightenment. In 1785 Joachim Heinrich Campe (1746–1818), a German educational reformer, called upon parents to record accounts of

the entire moral and physical treatment of the child, including the observed effects and consequences; observations of the first expressions of independence, attention, joy and pain; advances in physical and mental development; gradual formation of language and the child’s own very simple grammar; the beginnings of individual differences and emotions; basic patterns of future personality; etc.

—(1785, p. xxvii, cited in Bringmann, Hewett, & Ungerer, 1997, p. 37)

Various parents took up Campe’s suggestion and produced what came to be known as **baby diaries**. These included Dietrich Tiedemann’s (1748–1803) “Observations on the Development of Mental Abilities in Children” (Tiedemann, 1787), a record of the first two and half years of his son’s development, Hippolyte Taine’s (1828–1893) record of his daughters’ linguistic development (Taine, 1876), and Charles Darwin’s “Biographical Sketch of an Infant” (Darwin, 1897). Such developmental records later fell out of favor and came to be treated as amateurish and unscientific, although Millicent Shinn (1858–1940) received the first PhD in psychology from the University of California at Berkeley in 1898 for her dissertation documenting the first two years of the development of her niece Ruth (Scarborough & Furumoto, 1987), later published as *Biography of a Baby* (1900).

Adolf Kussmaul (1822–1902) adopted a more experimental approach in *Investigations of the Mental Life of Newborn Children* (Kussmaul, 1859). Kussmaul, a German internist, did experimental studies of the sensory responses of newborns while working as a public health physician in Heidelberg (Bringmann, Balance, & Bringmann, 1997). William T. Preyer’s (1841–1897) publication of *The Mind of the Child* in 1882 is usually held to mark the beginning of scientific approaches to the

study of child development. A professor of physiology at the University of Vienna, Preyer documented the development of “the separate vital processes” of his own son from birth to age 3, and provided a set of methodological guidelines for the objective study and recording of child development (Preyer, 1882).

Scientific Psychology and Developmental Psychology

Early scientific psychological conceptions of child development were linked to theoretical perspectives in education, psychiatry, and biology. Many theories were based upon Haeckel’s (1876) account of developmental recapitulation (“ontogeny recapitulates phylogeny”), which anticipated the modern concept of maturation. This was certainly true of the developmental theories propounded by G. Stanley Hall, generally recognized as the founder of developmental psychology in America. Hall pioneered the use of questionnaires in his study of child development (White, 1992) and quickly established links with educators (as did John Dewey at the University of Chicago and Teachers College). Hall was one of the founders of the child-study movement and published a number of articles and books on child development (Hall, 1893, Hall & Browne, 1904). He also pioneered the study of adolescence (Hall, 1904), a term he coined, and of old age (Hall, 1922). He founded *Pedagogical Seminary* in 1891, later retitled *The Journal of Genetic Psychology*.

Hall brought Freud to America in 1909, where he delivered a set of lectures on psychoanalysis at the 20th anniversary celebrations at Clark University. Although Freud’s detailed psychosexual theory of child development was generally rejected by developmental psychologists (Berndt & Zigler, 1985), the critical discussion of his theory established many of the research goals of early developmental psychology, which included the study of aggression, sex roles, morality, breast-feeding, and toilet training (Parke & Clarke-Stewart, 2003). Moreover, the **social-learning** approach to child development, which played a significant role in developmental psychology from the 1930s to the 1970s, was originally based upon the attempt by some of Hull’s students—notably John Dollard, Neal Miller, and Robert Sears—to integrate neobehaviorist learning theory and psychoanalytic theory (albeit in terms of the effective reduction of psychoanalytic theory to learning theory). They proposed neobehaviorist explanations of sex typing, childhood aggression, dependency, and moral development in terms of reinforcement through drive reduction (Dollard et al., 1939; Miller & Dollard, 1941) and explored child-rearing practices (such as toilet training and discipline) through extensive interviews with mothers (Sears, Maccoby, & Levin, 1957).

James Mark Baldwin was another pioneer of developmental psychology, who stressed the social dimensions of development and whose account of child development in terms of assimilation and accommodation (1895, 1897) influenced Jean

Piaget's (1926, 1932) studies of the cognitive development of the child (Berndt & Zigler, 1985). Other early accounts of child development also emphasized the social dimensions of development. The Russian psychologist Lev Vygotsky (1896–1934) accounted for the development of cognition in terms of the appropriation of the social form of language (Vygotsky, 1929, 1934). In Vygotsky's account, differences in social conditions lead to differences in psychological functions and patterns of cognitive development. Vygotsky's student and colleague, Alexander Luria (1902–1977), explored this implication. He documented cognitive-developmental changes associated with educational, economic, and industrial changes in the Soviet Republics of Central Asia (Luria, 1931, 1976). Piaget's early work also emphasized the role of social factors in child development (Piaget, 1932).

However, later theorists tended to neglect the social dimensions of child development (as social psychologists came to neglect the social orientation of human psychology and behavior), although they continued to stress the importance of interpersonal interaction, particularly with parents and other adults. This was especially true of the social-learning theories developed in the 1930s and 1940s (Dollard et al., 1939; Miller & Dollard, 1941), which came to dominate research in developmental psychology in the 1950s and 1960s. Social-learning theories focused on interpersonal rather than socially oriented learning and were variants of the theories of imitative learning first developed by Le Bon and Tarde. Yet like social psychologists, developmental psychologists never abandoned their theoretical focus on cognitive states and processes, even during the period of the hegemony of behaviorism.

Studies of child development in the early decades of the 20th century were strongly influenced by the mental testing movement. Arnold Gesell (1880–1961) worked at the Yale Clinic for Child Development from 1911 to 1961. He constructed a **developmental quotient** (Gesell, 1928), a measure of child development modeled upon Terman's intelligence quotient and based upon longitudinal studies of motor, linguistic, adaptive, and personal-social behavior (Berndt & Zigler, 1985). Gesell developed the notion of maturational stages introduced by earlier theorists such as Hall and maintained that learning plays a relatively minor role in child development.

John B. Watson championed the opposite view, that learning is the primary determinant of child development, although the few experiments he conducted on conditioned learning in young children (Watson, 1926; Watson & Rayner, 1920) provided rather weak evidential support for his grandiose environmentalist claims. Nonetheless, Watson had probably the greatest impact on child-rearing practices, largely through his popular works on child rearing, such as *Psychological Care of Infant and Child* (Watson & Watson, 1928), a field to which Gesell and his colleagues also contributed (Gesell & Ilg, 1946).

Watson's experimental studies of infants at the Phipps Clinic in Baltimore were supported by a grant from the **Laura Spelman Rockefeller Memorial Fund**, which also funded institutes of developmental research at major universities such



John B. Watson testing newborns.

as Yale, Columbia, Iowa, Minnesota, and UC Berkeley (Lomax, 1977). These were modeled upon the successful agricultural research stations of Midwestern state universities (at the University of Iowa, for example, the institute was called the Child Welfare Research Station). The Rockefeller Foundation also supported the work of Karl and Charlotte Bühler at the Vienna Institute of Psychology and Institute of Child Psychology. Charlotte Bühler visited the United States in 1924–1925 as a fellow of the Rockefeller Fund, where she met with Arnold Gesell and Edward L. Thorndike.

Rockefeller fellowships in child study and parent education also provided a unique opportunity for women, since in the early years the fund specifically directed its recruitment to women, advertising their fellowships under the rubric “For women only.” Of the 212 fellowship appointments made between 1924 and 1931, 205 were awarded to women, and women came to be well represented in the emerging discipline of developmental psychology (Cahan, 2005).

Large-scale longitudinal studies of cognitive, moral, social, and linguistic development were carried out in the 1930s and 1940s (Bayley, 1933, 1935,



Arnold Gesell study of identical twins.

1949). The theoretical debates about development initiated by Gesell and Watson continued, with Galton's method of twin studies employed to assess the relative contributions of maturation and learning (McGraw, 1935; Newman, Freeman, & Holzinger, 1937).

The first *Handbook of Child Psychology* was published in 1931 (Murchison, 1931), and the Society for Research in Child Development was founded in 1934. The Society became responsible for the publication of *Child Development* and *Child Developmental Abstracts and Bibliography*, the two premier journals in developmental psychology, and instituted the series *Monographs of the Society for Research in Child Development*. The APA Division of Developmental Psychology was founded in 1954, and the APA journal *Developmental Psychology* was launched in 1967.

Social learning theories remained influential throughout the 1960s and 1970s, although later theories were based upon cognitive modeling rather than reinforcement (Bandura, Ross & Ross, 1961). The critical importance of maternal support

and contact was demonstrated by John Bowlby's (1907–1990) research on maternal deprivation (Bowlby, 1958, 1969) and Harry Harlow's (1905–1981) research on infant monkeys and surrogate mothers (Harlow & Zimmerman, 1959).

Cognitive Development

Research on cognitive development came to dominate developmental psychology from the 1960s onward, in line with the cognitive revolution in psychology and stimulated by the resurgence of interest in the work of Jean Piaget (1896–1980). Piaget had been developing his theory of child development since the 1920s, although reactions to his early work (Piaget, 1926) were critical and unenthusiastic. However, interest in Piaget's biological-maturational account of cognitive development grew as critics came to question the explanatory range of neobehaviorist learning theory, and Chomsky's (1957) work on the child's acquisition of language stimulated interest in the programmed acquisition of cognitive capacities and skills. Piaget's work was reintroduced to American psychologists through J. McVicker Hunt's *Intelligence and Experience* (1961) and John Flavell's *The Developmental Psychology of John Piaget* (1963).

Piaget was a former student of the psychiatrist Eugene Bleuler (1857–1939) and had worked with Theodore Simon on the elaboration of Binet's intelligence tests. He advanced a **stage theory** of cognitive development based upon detailed longitudinal studies of his own children (Piaget, 1952, 1954; Piaget & Inhelder, 1958). According to Piaget, children attain mastery of cognitive structures through assimilation and accommodation. As children mature, they acquire increasingly more complex cognitive structures as they pass through the sensorimotor (birth to 2 years), preoperational (2 to 7 years), concrete operational (7 to 11 years), and formal operational (11 to 15 years) stages. While Piaget stressed the child's active contribution, he also maintained that the stages of development are fixed by biological maturation and that each developmental stage is characterized by the simultaneous acquisition of an integrated range of cognitive skills. One distinctive feature of Piaget's theory was that he maintained that later cognitive stages are discontinuous with earlier stages (analogous to the discontinuity of theoretical stages in the development of Western science [Piaget & Garcia, 1989]), in contrast to both Gesell and Watson, who maintained that development is a continuous accumulation of increasingly complex capacities and skills.

Piaget's theory was enormously influential and stimulated a great deal of research. In recognition of his unique contribution to developmental psychology, he was awarded the APA's Distinguished Scientific Contribution Award in 1969. This is not to say that Piaget's theories were universally accepted. Some critics questioned Piaget's claim that stages of development are fixed and maintained that cognitive development can be accelerated through educational training,

while others raised doubts about the cross-cultural applicability of Piaget's theory (Berndt & Zigler, 1985). Similar doubts about cross-cultural applicability were raised concerning Lawrence Kohlberg's (1927–1987) extension of Piaget's stage theory of moral development (Kohlberg, 1969, 1984; Piaget, 1932). Kohlberg's theory also stimulated a great deal of research, including Carol Gilligan's studies of the development of the “care” perspective, which she maintained was distinctive of female moral development (Gilligan, 1982). Eventually research on cognitive and moral development transcended the original Piagetian orientation, and developmental psychologists began to investigate the development of cognitive, emotional, and social capacities and skills not covered by the Piaget and Kohlberg stage paradigms (Flavell, 1994).

Since the 1980s, one of the hot topics has been the study of the development of the **child's theory of mind**, which has focused on the development of young children's ability to explain and predict their own and others' behavior in terms of mental states such as beliefs, desires, and emotion (Astington, Olson, & Harris, 1988; Carruthers & Smith, 1996). Research has suggested that a major transformation in the child's theory of mind occurs around age 4, when children move from an elementary “copy” theory of mind to a fully “representational” theory of mind, which allows them to acknowledge the explanatory role of false beliefs (Wellman, 1990). This research has been largely based upon the “false-belief” experimental paradigm, in which an imaginary scenario is acted out with child dolls. For example, one doll—Sally—hides her marble in a box and goes away for a walk. While she is away, another doll—Anne—removes the marble from the box and hides it in a basket. Children are asked where Sally will look for her marble when she returns and wants it. In most cases, 3-year-olds answer that Sally will look for her marble in the basket, where it really is, rather than in the box, where she should believe it is. In contrast, 4- to 5-year-olds and adults generally answer that Sally will look for the marble in the box, where she falsely believes it to be (Hogrefe, Wimmer, & Perner, 1986).

As developmental psychology became an established and recognized subdiscipline of psychology, developmental psychologists began to apply their findings to broader social issues. They were instrumental in the promotion of the **Head Start** program, a government program aimed at enriching the educational and social experience of economically disadvantaged children during the critical early years of development. The expert advice of developmental psychologists was sought by government agencies on the influence of television, the effects of day care, and the efficacy of reading programs (Berndt & Zigler, 1985).

Like their colleagues in social psychology, developmental psychologists have tended to neglect the social orientation of human psychology and behavior, with most research on “socialization” focusing on imitative interpersonal behavior and interaction. However, unlike their colleagues in social psychology, developmental psychologists never became committed to experimentation as the *sine qua non*

of scientific psychology. Although there has been an increase in the proportion of experimental studies in recent decades, developmental psychologists have continued to employ a variety of empirical methods, such as longitudinal studies, naturalistic observation, field experiments, participant observation and interviews, alongside controlled laboratory studies.

DISCUSSION QUESTIONS

1. Try to identify socially oriented forms of thought, emotion, and behavior that are not directed to social objects (other persons and groups) and forms of thought, emotion, and behavior directed to social objects (other persons and social groups) that are not socially oriented.
2. Try to identify some occupational (social) attitudes. Can you identify any occupational attitudes associated with contemporary social psychologists?
3. Is it possible to do experiments in social psychology, given the various methodological and moral problems identified during the “crisis” in social psychology? Can the experimental study of socially oriented psychology and behavior be reconciled with the demand for randomization?
4. Are “baby diaries” a legitimate method of empirical study in developmental psychology? Consider the advantages and disadvantages of having child caregivers as child observers.
5. Has the subject matter of developmental psychology changed in the 20th century to the same degree as the subject matter of social psychology?

GLOSSARY

autonomy individualism Conception of individualism in which individuality is considered in terms of rational self-determination, associated with utilitarianism and laissez-faire economics.

baby diary Descriptive record of early child development based upon parental observations.

child’s theory of mind The ability of children to explain and predict their own and others’ behavior in terms of mental states such as beliefs, desires, and emotions.

co-acting group For Floyd Allport, an experimental group in which subjects are primarily engaged with some common stimulus.

communitarian individualism Conception of individualism in which individuality is considered in terms of relations to social community.

crisis in social psychology Period in the 1970s during which social psychology was subjected to a variety of metatheoretical, methodological, and moral critiques.

crowd psychology Theories of the irrational and emotional behavior of members of crowds (based upon suggestibility and imitation) developed by Le Bon and Tarde at the turn of the century.

developmental quotient Arnold Gesell's measure of development modeled upon Terman's intelligence quotient and based upon longitudinal studies of motor, linguistic, adaptive, and personal-social behavior.

face-to-face (interacting) group Experimental group in which subjects interact with one another.

group fallacy According to Floyd Allport, the misguided attempt to explain social phenomena in terms of the group as a whole, rather than in terms of the individuals who compose it.

Head Start program Government program aimed at enriching the educational and social experience of economically disadvantaged children during the critical early years of development.

holism Theory that social groups are supra-individual entities with emergent properties, not reducible to the properties of the individual persons that compose them.

interaction effects Interactions between experimenters and subjects that introduce contaminating or confounding variables.

individual psychology Study of psychology and behavior that is the product of reasons or causes operating independently of social orientation.

interpersonal psychological states and behavior Psychological states and behavior directed toward other persons.

Laura Spelman Rockefeller Memorial Fund Major source of funding for institutes of developmental research at American universities.

occupational attitude Term employed by Emory Bogardus to characterize attitudes associated with membership of particular professions or trades.

public Term introduced by Gabriel Tarde to describe physically dispersed populations of individuals.

public opinion research Surveys of the common attitudes or opinions of physically dispersed aggregations of individuals, independently of their social orientation or affiliation.

reference group Term introduced by Herbert Hyman to reference the different social groups to which an individual's attitudes and behavior may be oriented.

social cognition Cognitive states and processes directed toward other persons and social groups.

- social learning theory** A theory of learning and development based upon imitation and cognitive modeling.
- social orientation** The orientation of human psychology and behavior to the represented psychology and behavior of members of social groups.
- social psychology** As originally conceived, the study of the socially oriented forms of human psychology and behavior.
- social constructionism** Postmodern conception of theory adoption as a matter of social rhetoric and negotiation rather than a product of empirical evaluation.
- social self** Term employed by James to characterize those aspects of self that are associated with membership of social groups.
- stage theory** A theory of development that postulates different stages of development.

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The Past and Future of Scientific Psychology

THE LAST TWO CHAPTERS DEMONSTRATE AN IMPORTANT FEATURE OF the historical development of clinical, social, and developmental psychology in relation to the general development of psychology in America in the 20th century. The development of these subdisciplines of psychology did not simply parallel the general development of psychology in terms of the historical progression from structural to functional psychology, and from behaviorism to cognitive psychology. While theories and therapies based upon behaviorist learning theory and cognitive processing were developed in clinical psychology, they were developed together in the postwar period, which marked the end of the behaviorist hegemony in general psychology. While some social psychologists called themselves behaviorists, they remained committed to the study of social attitudes and public opinion from the beginning to the end of the 20th century. Developmental psychologists never embraced the general commitment by psychologists (including social psychologists) to experimentation as the essence of scientific psychology.

This illustrates the contingency of the development of American psychology. Although one may trace the conceptual continuities and discontinuities between the development of structural and functional psychology, and behaviorism and cognitive psychology, it is well to remember that the development of American psychology depended upon the particularities and peculiarities of the social, cultural, political, and institutional context and the vagaries of the careers of individual psychologists.

This contingency becomes especially apparent when one compares the 20th-century development of American psychology with the development of psychology in other countries (Sexton & Misiak, 1976). To take but a few illustrative examples, Italian psychology embraced cognitive psychology in the early 1920s and never looked back (Mecacci, 1992). When George Miller critiqued the behaviorist position at a talk he gave in London in the 1960s, his host pointed out that there were only three behaviorists in Britain and apologized for the fact that none were in attendance (Baars, 1986). Henri Pieron (1881–1964) articulated the behaviorist